



# Why are Christian digital games deemed preachy?

*Case Studies Into the Formal Elements of Christian Entertainment Software and How They Affect Player Engagement.*

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*A dissertation submitted in partial fulfilment of the requirements for the degree of M.Sc. in Digital Games.*



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*First edition, Friday 24<sup>th</sup> April, 2026*

*To John Doe*

*Some more descriptive text.*

## Acknowledgements

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## Abstract

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## List of Abbreviations

# Introduction

## 1.1 | Motivation

## 1.2 | Aims and Objectives

Hello, here is some text without a meaning. This text should show what a printed text will look like at this place. If you read this text, you will get no information. Really? Is there no information? Is there a difference between this text and some nonsense like “Huardest gefburn”? Kjift – not at all! A blind text like this gives you information about the selected font, how the letters are written and an impression of the look. This text should contain all letters of the alphabet and it should be written in of the original language. There is no need for special content, but the length of words should match the language.

## 1.3 | Our Approach

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## 1.4 | Document Structure

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## Background & Literature Overview

### 2.1 | What are Christian Digital Games?

In an interview, games scholar Kevin Schut states that currently there is no consensus on what defines a Christian game (Faith Forms, 2024, 8:38). This becomes apparent when one examines online discussion around the topic. For example, one of the factors that Moon Channel (2023) considers when determining if a digital game is Christian is that it must promote Christian morals. Meanwhile, Hartgrove (2022) considers *Hypnospace Outlaw* (2019) a Christian game primarily because its creator, Jay Tholen, identifies as a Christian<sup>1</sup>. Within the same interview, Schut also seems to imply that the definition is subject to change, given that the use of the label is undergoing constant cultural negotiation (8:50, 24:26). Therefore, before conducting my study, I needed to establish a static, working definition of “Christian digital games”.

#### 2.1.1 | Existing Definitions

Earlier work by Schut (2013) gives us a good starting point for such a definition. Based on a series of interviews with seventeen Christians working in the game industry, he outlined four definitions of “Christian Games”. Explicitly Christian Games “feature Bible stories or passages, very clear presentation of the gospel message, and stories that very openly have a Christian worldview”. As an example, Schut raises *Big Bible Town* (2010), a digital game which aims to teach children about Bible stories. Meanwhile, Allegorical Christian Games “have stories that are not necessarily openly Christian but have Christian themes or messages underneath them” (p. 137). Interviewees mentioned no instances of such games, but they cited the Narnia series by C.S. Lewis as an example of this style.

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<sup>1</sup> Although Hartgrove does discuss the game’s content somewhat, he does not deem explicit ideological content as necessary.

Interviewees also raised what Schut terms as Evangelical Christian digital games, which “focus on sharing the gospel with people who aren’t Christians”. (pp. 137–138). However, this is only a hypothetical definition since Schut could not cite an examples. Lastly, Christian-friendly games, such as *Bejeweled* and *Words With Friends*, are “clean and safe, without significant violence, adult sexuality, swearing, anti-Christian world-views, and other things that Christians might find offensive or disturbing” (p. 137).

Schut's work also gives valuable insight into how the term “Christian Games” is used. For example, he notes that most of the interviewees commonly defined “Christian Games” as either Explicitly Christian Games or Allegorically Christian games. However, only few of them considered Christian-friendly games part of the genre. Although this information proved useful for my study, I was hesitant to reuse these definitions due to Schut's ambiguous use of the term “Christian”.

What one person considers as “Christian” media might not necessarily be deemed as Christian by another. For example, Gonzalez (2014) talks about *The War In Heaven* (1999), a first-person shooter which has been criticised for allowing players to play as demons. She points out an anonymous review in which the reviewer argues that the game does not teach the Bible in the right context (p. 209). Nevertheless, the developers defended this inclusion, stating that “[their] design is in accordance with Biblical teachings” (p. 204).

Subsequent work by Schut (2026) acknowledges the subjective application of this term (p. 310), and clarifies his use of the term “Christian”. While there are various groups which could be described as Christian, Schut observes that the Christian media industry in North America is influenced primarily by Evangelicals. He attributes their dominance to their collective focus on proselytism and their eagerness to adopt new media technologies as a means to that end. However, he also remarks that Evangelicals have not always counted for the majority of North American Christians, and that they are still garnering a presence in most other countries. Furthermore, he also notes that other groups, such as Roman Catholics, have also produced Christian games. Consequently, he specifies that, within the context of Christian digital games, the term “Christian” is often synonymous with “Evangelical”, though this is not always the case.

Within the same study, Schut continued to investigate the ways in which Christians have employed the term “Christian genre”. He found that, occasionally, Christians have argued that digital games with Christian authorship are Christian games. However, after a brief survey of the types of digital games which players have described as Chris-

tian, Schut concluded that Christians typically use the term to disclose the presence of Christian ideology within a digital game. However, Schut does not provide a more detailed, formal definition which I could use for my research.

Gonzalez (2014) corroborates Schut's claims about Christian digital game production. By compiling a comprehensive list of religious digital games she demonstrated that the overwhelming majority of these games had Evangelical associations. However, unlike Schut, Gonzales does not opt to define Christian games for her research. Instead, she defines "religious games" to study Evangelical digital games within the broader picture of playful religious software. Using "agential realism" as an ontological frame, Gonzales describes something as "religious" if it stages interactions between human and non-human beings (p. 24), such as angels and demons.

Based on this definition, she excludes games like *Castlevania* (1986) from her study, which include typically religious materials to embellish their fictional world. She does this because these games do not depict the non-human others as agents with which borders must be negotiated, but as imaginary entities. Similarly, she disregards games such as *Run, Jesus Run!* (2010) or *Crucify-me! Jesus* (2000), which utilize religious material derisively, since these negotiate boundaries between human groups. Furthermore, Gonzales limits her study to religious organizations, which she defines as a long-lived alliance of human and non-human entities which jointly determine the borders of humanity.

While this definition is more rigorous than either of Schut's definitions, my original research question does not concern games associated with religions unrelated to Christianity. Therefore, I could not use it for my research. Nevertheless, her definition of religious organisations proved useful as inspiration for my own definition, which I explain in the following section.

### 2.1.2 | My Definition

Each of the definitions mentioned in the previous section presents valid ideas about what can qualify a game as "Christian" or "religious". However, given that the definitions are either incomplete or cover games outside my field of study, I could not reuse them for my research. Therefore, using these existing definitions as a point of departure, I created my own definition of "Christian digital games" (or "Christian games" for short).

As I have already pointed out in the previous section, a complete definition of Christian games also needs to elucidate its use of the term “Christian”. During my research, I could not find much insight into how players or developers use the term in the context of Christian games. While I have found blogs by Oliver (2014, 2016) which mention Evangelicals when discussing Christian games, there are also other individuals which do not specify any particular denomination (Hartgrove, 2022; Monkastery, 2018; Moon Channel, 2023)<sup>2</sup>. Meanwhile, related studies either fail to elaborate on their usage (Schut, 2013) or employ it as a catch-all term for various religious groups (Bernauer, 2012; Schut, 2026). Furthermore, Gonzalez (2014) seems to use within her list of religious games it as an overarching category for games associated with a specific Christian denomination.

Therefore, to facilitate discussion about existing research, I defined “Christianity” as blanket term encompassing a constellation of long-lived groups or institutions which promote their interpretation of Christ's teachings, such as Evangelicals, Presbyterians, Anglicans, Roman Catholics, Greek Orthodox, and Mormons. Similarly, something (e.g. an ideology or a belief) is “Christian” when it is primarily based on the teachings of Jesus Christ as understood by one or more of these communities. Of course, these definitions are by no means authoritative; they only serve to establish a common understanding for discussion.

After establishing a working definition of “Christian”, I proceeded by defining Christian games as a genre. Given that I was investigating players' perceptions of Christian digital games, I based my definition on the most common uses of the term, which relate to Christian ideology (Schut, 2026). Other elements, such as biblical stories, Bible quotes, Christian themes and messages, which Schut (2013) outlines in his definitions of Explicitly Christian games and Allegorical Christian games, could be said to be manifestations of such a worldview. Additionally, Gonzalez (2014) remarks that many Evangelical games betray a theology of spiritual warfare prevalent among Evangelicals in the 1980s and 90s, even if ideology is not a prerequisite in her definition of religious games.

Therefore, for this study, “Christian games” are digital games with an underlying Christian worldview that presents itself through legible signifiers. That is, the game contains elements which players can trace to Christian ideology with relative ease. Obvious examples of such signifiers include adaptations of Bible stories and the inclusion of Bible quotes, such as in *Super 3D Noah's Ark* (1994). Other Christian games indicate

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<sup>2</sup>Nevertheless, it is worth noting that the examples cited within these discussions are Evangelical games.



their Christian status through their treatment of their scripted narrative's themes. Consider *That Dragon, Cancer* (2016) for example. Its scripted narrative tackles the loss of the developers' son through the lens of their Christian faith, making their spirituality explicit in the process.

Alternatively, scripted narratives in Christian games can feature thinly veiled Christian allegories. The developers of *Alum* (2015), describe it as “a sort of Christian Allegory along the lines of Pilgrims [sic] Progress or The Lion, the Witch, and the Wardrobe” (Crashable Studios, 2015). Some players recognised this, calling *Alum* a Christian game, often citing, or implying its narrative as their primary reason<sup>3</sup>. One player specifies that they classify it as a Christian game because the game's scripted narrative develops a loving relationship between the eponymous player character, “Alum”, and a deity called the “Unfeigned Altruist”, while also pitting *Alum* in a fight against dark forces<sup>4</sup> (thomascanarias, 2016). Even if players do not notice the parallels to Christianity while playing, the game's ending makes one parallel explicit when it calls Jesus Christ “the true and living Unfeigned Altruist” (Innuendo Studios, 2020, 10:20).

For the most part, *Alum* (2015) attempts to be more covert than *Super 3D Noah's Ark* (1994) or *That Dragon, Cancer* (2016) about its ties to Christianity. Nevertheless, all three narrow the range of possible associations such that even players with a cursory knowledge of Christianity can make the connection. The same cannot be said about the example given by Hartgrove (2022). He argues that through its aesthetically pleasing qualities, artistic excellence, and believable characters, *Hypnospace Outlaw* (2019) reveals its creator's (i.e. Jay Tholen's) love for beauty originating from his Christian beliefs. While this philosophy can be connected to Christianity, it is hardly exclusive to it. Without prior knowledge of Tholen's religious beliefs, players may just as easily relate it a secular worldview.

Since my definition requires the digital game in question to be aligned with Christian ideology, I did not consider games which draw on Christianity for inspiration. So, despite requiring players to journey through hell and slaughter demon hordes, *Doom* (1993) falls outside of the field being studied. The same cannot be said for games which reference Christianity to mock it or its followers. As an example, Gonzalez (2014, p. 120) mentions BoMToons, a Mormon game developer which created multiple digital games poking fun at Mormon scripture and culture. However, the examples brought up by players when criticising Christian games, such as *Left Behind: Eternal Forces* (2006) (Hart-

<sup>3</sup>For examples, see Arkane (2015), hamja (2015) and virotti (2017).

<sup>4</sup>See Chapter 4 for a more detailed analysis of *Alum*'s narrative.

grove, 2022) and *Captain Bible in Dome of Darkness* (1994) (Moon Channel, 2023), tend to be more earnest about their subject matter. Hence, I limited my study to digital games which approach Christianity in a more solemn manner.

## 2.2 | Related Work

## 2.3 | Summary

## Materials & Methods

This section should include a recipe of what you did (explain what you have done so if someone wants to reproduce the experiment, they can). Should also include a description of statistical methods used (if any).<sup>1</sup>

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### 3.1 | Summary

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<sup>1</sup>For more information see: <http://rc.rcjournal.com/content/49/10/1229.short>. Last Accessed: 27<sup>th</sup> November, 2024.

## Analysis & Discussion

Should include a reiteration of the experiments, and their outcome. Together with a description (discussion). Preamble should include a reminder of the aims and objectives together with a list of experiments to achieve these. Should include many charts and other visualization with appropriate descriptions.<sup>1</sup>

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### 4.1 | Summary

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<sup>1</sup>Another footnote example.

## Conclusions

This section should have a summary of the whole project. The original aims and objective and whether these have been met should be discussed. It should include a section with a critique and a list of limitations of your proposed solutions. Future work should be described, and this should not be marginal or silly (e.g. add machine learning models). It is always good to end on a positive note (i.e. 'Final Remarks').

### 5.1 | Revisiting the Aims and Objectives

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### 5.2 | Critique and Limitations

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## 5.3 | Future Work

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## 5.4 | Final Remarks

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## User Manual

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